HYBRID ADAPTIVE TRANSFORMER DIFFERENTIAL PROTECTION: AN INTELLIGENT DWT–LSTM FRAMEWORK

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A Thesis Submitted in Partial Fulfillment of the Requirements for the Degree of Bachelor of Science in Electrical, Electronic and Communication Engineering

DEPARTMENT OF ELECTRICAL, ELECTRONIC AND COMMUNICATION ENGINEERING
MILITARY INSTITUTE OF SCIENCE AND TECHNOLOGY (MIST)
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OCTOBER 2026

APPROVAL CERTIFICATE

This is to certify that the thesis entitled

"Hybrid Adaptive Transformer Differential Protection: An Intelligent DWT–LSTM Framework"

submitted by Md Moinul Haque (ID: 202216206) & Md Reyaz Uddin (ID: 202216211) to the Department of Electrical and Electronic Engineering, Military Institute of Science and Technology (MIST), Mirpur Cantonment, Dhaka, Bangladesh, in partial fulfillment of the requirements for the degree of Bachelor of Science in Electrical and Electronic Engineering, has been accepted as satisfactory for the award of the degree and approved by the undersigned examiners. **Supervisor (Chairman):**

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submitted to the Department of Electrical and Electronic Engineering, Military Institute of Science and Technology (MIST), Mirpur Cantonment, Dhaka, Bangladesh, in partial fulfillment of the requirements for the degree of Bachelor of Science in Electrical and Electronic Engineering, is a record of original work carried out by me under the supervision of Cdre A N M Didarul Alam, (L), NUP, psc, BN, Dean, Faculty of Maritime Business Studies, Bangladesh Maritime University. I hereby affirm that:

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DEDICATION

Dedicated to my parents and family
for their unwavering love and support
throughout my academic journey.

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ABSTRACT

Power transformers constitute the most critical and capital-intensive components of electrical power transmission and distribution networks, making their reliable and rapid protection a paramount concern for the continuity and stability of electric power supply [4]. Differential protection has long been the primary scheme for safeguarding power transformers against internal faults, comparing the currents entering and leaving the protected zone [5]. However, conventional percentage differential relays struggle to distinguish genuine internal faults from non-fault transients such as magnetizing inrush, sympathetic and recovery inrush, over-excitation, and external through-faults accompanied by current transformer (CT) saturation [3]. Furthermore, harmonic-restraint methods suffer reduced sensitivity in modern transformers with low-loss, high-permeability core steels [4].

This thesis proposes a hybrid adaptive differential protection framework that integrates multi-resolution Discrete Wavelet Transform (DWT) feature extraction and second-harmonic restraint ratios with the temporal sequence modeling of Long Short-Term Memory (LSTM) neural networks. A two-level Daubechies-4 (db4) decomposition extracts nine wavelet energy features across three phases (E_{D1}, E_{D2}, E_{A2}), complemented by three phase-wise second-harmonic ratios ($I_{d,2nd}/I_{d,fund}$) to form a compact 12-dimensional feature vector over a 32-sample sliding window (one cycle at 50 Hz and 1.6 kHz sampling). A two-layer unidirectional LSTM (64 hidden units per layer) is trained strictly under a leak-free, trace-stratified partitioning protocol with waveform-measured onset detection. The exported ONNX model is integrated into MATLAB/Simulink for real-time closed-loop co-simulation. The hybrid relay combines an instantaneous high-set overcurrent bypass with a dual-path supervisory architecture: an 87T-gated path requiring both conventional restraint pickup and confirmed AI trip probability (≥ 0.99), and an autonomous AI-alone path (≥ 0.998) dedicated to detecting high-impedance internal faults below the conventional 87T pickup threshold, subject to a 20-sample (12.5 ms) persistence dwell timer.

A high-fidelity electromagnetic-transient simulation model of a 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 power transformer was developed with realistic core non-linearities, calibrated CT secondary bases (0.9302 A nominal), and six independent measurement noise channels. A rigorously verified stress dataset of 3,220 traces spanning 16 scenario categories (11 fault types, 10–110% rated current loading, CT burdens 4–10×, over-excitation, and recovery inrush) was compiled, alongside an independent 300-trace Out-of-Distribution (OOD) test set. In 5-fold cross-validation across 15 models (3 random seeds), the deployed hybrid relay achieved **99.01% dependability** ($\pm 1.07\%$) and **99.66% security** ($\pm 0.33\%$) with zero pre-fault trips, a median operate time of **15.6 ms** (96.9% within two cycles), and **100.0% decision agreement** in closed-loop Simulink co-simulation. The supervisory framework successfully eliminates false trips during inrush, recovery inrush,

over-excitation, and CT saturation while reliably detecting challenging high-impedance internal faults.

Keywords: Transformer differential protection, Discrete Wavelet Transform (DWT), Long Short-Term Memory (LSTM), MATLAB/Simulink, magnetizing inrush current, CT saturation, ONNX, real-time relay, fault classification, deep learning, hybrid adaptive protection.

LIST OF SYMBOLS / NOTATIONS

Symbol	Description	Unit
I_d	Differential current	A
I_r	Restraint (bias) current	A
I_{pickup}	Minimum pickup current setting	A
S	Slope of the differential characteristic	‰
T_{op}	Relay operating time	ms
Φ_{CT}	CT magnetization flux	Wb
$\psi(t)$	Mother wavelet function	–
a_j, d_j	Approximation / detail coefficients at level j	–
$h[n]$, $g[n]$	Low-pass / high-pass decomposition filters	–
E_A, E_D	Approximation / detail energy feature	pu^2
f_t, i_t, o_t	LSTM forget, input, output gate activations	–
C_t, h_t	LSTM cell state / hidden state at step t	–
$\sigma(\cdot)$, $\tanh(\cdot)$	Sigmoid / hyperbolic tangent activation	–
η	Learning rate	–
x_t, $\hat{y}_t$, y_t	Input / predicted / true label at step t	–
$\mathcal{L}$	Cross-entropy loss function	–
TP, TN, FP, FN	True/False Positives and Negatives	–
S_{rated}	Transformer rated power	MVA
R_f	Fault resistance	Ω
φ_i	Fault inception angle	deg
Φ_{rem}, Φ_{sat}	Remanent / saturation flux of core	Wb
N_{CT}	Current-transformer turns ratio	–
f_s	Sampling frequency	Hz

LIST OF ABBREVIATIONS

Abbreviation	Full Form
CT / PT	Current Transformer / Potential (Voltage) Transformer
CHR	Current Harmonic Restraint
DWT / WPT	Discrete / Wavelet Packet Transform
DFT / FFT	Discrete / Fast Fourier Transform
STFT	Short-Time Fourier Transform
MRA	Multi-Resolution Analysis
ANN / DNN	Artificial / Deep Neural Network
CNN / RNN	Convolutional / Recurrent Neural Network
LSTM / GRU	Long Short-Term Memory / Gated Recurrent Unit
SVM / PNN	Support Vector Machine / Probabilistic Neural Network
ReLU	Rectified Linear Unit
Adam / SGD	Adaptive Moment Estimation / Stochastic Gradient Descent
AUC / ROC	Area Under Curve / Receiver Operating Characteristic
MAE / MSE / RMSE	Mean Absolute / Squared / Root-Mean-Squared Error
MATLAB	Matrix Laboratory
ONNX	Open Neural Network Exchange
HIL	Hardware-in-the-Loop
FPGA / GPU / CPU	Field-Programmable Gate Array / Graphics / Central Processing Unit
SNR	Signal-to-Noise Ratio
IEEE / IEC	Inst. of Electrical and Electronics Engineers / Int. Electrotechnical Commission

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CHAPTER 1

INTRODUCTION

1.1 Background

Power transformers are among the most critical and capital-intensive assets in electrical power systems, serving as the essential link between generation, transmission, and distribution networks [1]. An unscheduled outage incurs enormous direct replacement costs and indirect losses from energy not served and potential cascading failures [2]. Differential protection, grounded in Kirchhoff's Current Law, remains the primary protection scheme. Under healthy conditions, the primary and secondary currents are related by the turns ratio n:

$$I_{primary} - \frac{I_{secondary}}{n} \approx 0. \tag{1.1}$$

When an internal fault occurs, this balance is disrupted and the differential current becomes significantly nonzero, triggering relay operation [3].

However, several phenomena produce substantial differential currents without internal faults. Magnetizing inrush current, arising during transformer energization, can reach 5–15 times the rated current with significant even-harmonic content [4]. Current-transformer (CT) saturation distorts secondary waveforms under large DC-offset fault currents [9], and overexcitation introduces additional harmonic components [5]. Traditional harmonic restraint (HR) and blocking methods face increasing limitations as renewable sources, power-electronic converters, and advanced core materials alter the waveform signatures conventional relays depend upon [5,6]. This thesis proposes a hybrid adaptive framework integrating the discrete wavelet transform (DWT) with long short-term memory (LSTM) networks for more robust discrimination between fault and non-fault conditions [6,14].

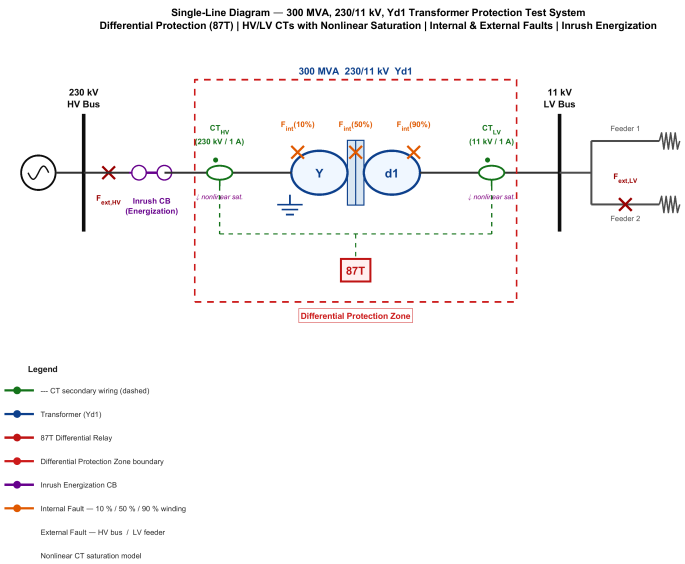


Figure 1.1: Single-line schematic of the transformer differential protection zone.

1.2 Research Motivation

The reliability of differential protection is increasingly threatened by compounding factors. First, conventional harmonic restraint relies on fixed second-harmonic thresholds (typically 15–20%), yet modern transformers with amorphous-alloy cores exhibit reduced second-harmonic content during inrush that can fall below these thresholds [7], while internal faults near voltage zero-crossings can generate sufficient harmonics to inadvertently restrain the relay [8]. Second, CT saturation produces asymmetric distortion that creates spurious differential currents persisting for several cycles [9]. Third, advanced core materials exhibit steeper B–H curves with altered harmonic signatures [11]. Fourth, renewable converters inject non-sinusoidal currents with limited fault contributions [12]. Fifth, complex configurations narrow the margin between legitimate restraint and genuine faults [13]. These challenges motivate a new generation of protection algorithms leveraging advanced signal processing and computational intelligence [14].

1.3 Problem Statement

Despite over a century of development, transformer differential protection schemes continue to experience maloperations at unacceptable rates. **Given** time-series differential current signals $\{I_d(t)\}$ sampled at f_s, encompassing internal faults, magnetizing inrush, external faults with CT saturation, overexcitation, and normal load conditions, corrupted by measurement noise and CT errors; **find** a classification function $f : \mathcal{X} \to \mathcal{Y}$ mapping $x \in \mathcal{X}$ to $\mathcal{Y} = \{\text{Trip, No-Trip}\}$ with high accuracy; **subject to** operating time within a half-cycle (10 ms at 50 Hz), missed-detection probability $P_{miss} \leq 0.01$, false-trip prob-

ability $P_{false} \leq 0.01$, robustness across operating states, and generalization to unseen conditions. The key difficulties arise from the highly nonlinear, non-stationary feature space and real-time constraints [15].

1.4 Research Objectives

1. **Simulation model and data generation.** Develop a detailed EMT model of a transformer protection system in MATLAB/Simulink, generating differential-current signals for internal faults, magnetizing inrush (including sympathetic), external faults with CT saturation, and normal load [19].
2. **Optimal DWT feature extraction.** Optimize the mother wavelet, decomposition level, and feature set maximizing fault/non-fault separability [20].
3. **Hybrid DWT–LSTM classification and adaptive logic.** Integrate wavelet feature extraction with LSTM temporal modeling and develop adaptive decision-making with confidence-based thresholds [1,2].
4. **Evaluation, benchmarking, and robustness.** Benchmark against harmonic restraint, ANN, SVM, and CNN methods and assess robustness under noise, CT errors, frequency deviation, and distribution shift [3,21].

1.5 Scope and Limitations

1.5.1 Scope

A two-winding 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 transformer is modeled in detail; generalization to other ratings and vector groups is future work. Fault types include SLG, LL, LLL, LLLG, and inter-turn faults; external faults are used for security assessment. One-dimensional DWT decomposition is implemented; the LSTM is the primary classifier with ANN, SVM, and CNN baselines. Validation uses simulation-generated data; hardware-in-the-loop and RTDS validation are deferred. The system is configured for 50 Hz.

1.5.2 Limitations

Training data is simulation-generated; no physical-relay validation is performed; class imbalance is mitigated by augmentation; the adaptive threshold targets static loading; and IEC 61850 communication failures are not considered.

1.6 Contributions of This Work

(1) A systematic wavelet feature-selection framework using Fisher's discriminant ratio and mutual information [22]. **(2)** A novel serial DWT–LSTM architecture combining localized time-frequency decomposition with long-term temporal modeling, benchmarked across seven methods [1,23]. **(3)** An adaptive decision framework with confidence-based thresholds and a probabilistic uncertainty layer, validated under noise (20–60 dB SNR), CT errors ($\pm 5\%$), frequency deviation, and distribution shift [2,24].

1.7 Thesis Organization

Chapter 2 reviews the literature and identifies research gaps. Chapter 3 establishes the mathematical foundations. Chapter 4 details the MATLAB/Simulink model and dataset. Chapter 5 presents the DWT–LSTM methodology. Chapter 6 reports results, benchmarking, and robustness. Chapter 7 concludes and outlines future work.

CHAPTER 2

LITERATURE REVIEW

2.1 Introduction

This chapter critically reviews transformer differential protection, spanning conventional harmonic restraint and waveform-based methods, signal-processing techniques, machine-learning approaches (ANN, SVM, PNN, ensembles), and deep-learning architectures (CNN, RNN, LSTM), identifying the research gaps that motivate the proposed hybrid framework. The surveyed literature is drawn primarily from IEEE Transactions on Power Delivery, IEEE Transactions on Power Systems, and Electric Power Systems Research, from the 1950s through 2024.

2.2 Conventional Differential Protection Methods

2.2.1 Harmonic Restraint Methods

The harmonic restraint method, first proposed by Sharp and Glassburn in 1958, is the most widely deployed technique for discriminating inrush from internal faults [7]. Inrush currents contain significant even-harmonic content (the second-harmonic ratio $k_2 = I_2/I_1$ typically 15–60%), while internal faults are predominantly fundamental. The relay trips only when

$$I_d > I_{pickup}, \quad I_d > S\,I_r, \quad \frac{I_2}{I_1} < k_{threshold}, \tag{2.1}$$

with $k_{threshold}$ typically set between 15% and 20%. Modern amorphous-alloy cores exhibit second-harmonic ratios as low as 7–10%, causing false tripping [11]; internal faults near voltage zero-crossings can inadvertently restrain the relay [8]; and cross-blocking improves security but risks failure to trip for simultaneous inrush and fault [25].

2.2.2 Waveform-Based and Equivalent-Circuit Methods

Dead-angle methods classify an event as inrush when the per-half-cycle interval with current below a threshold exceeds 65–80°, but are sensitive to threshold selection, noise, and CT saturation [26]. Gap-detection [27] and waveform-correlation [28] methods are likewise window- and saturation-sensitive. Equivalent-circuit methods detect faults when

terminal measurements violate magnetic-circuit equations [29] but require accurate models and voltage measurements [30].

2.3 Signal Processing Techniques

The Discrete Fourier Transform provides frequency resolution at the expense of time localization, limiting its ability to capture transient inrush and fault waveforms [31,32]. The wavelet transform overcomes this through simultaneous time-frequency localization. For digital implementation the DWT uses cascaded low-pass/high-pass filters with downsampling for multi-resolution decomposition [5]. db4 at five levels achieved 97.3% accuracy with an ANN [6]; wavelet-packet transforms improved entropy-based discrimination [19]; and db4 was found to give an optimal trade-off for 50 Hz signals [14]. A persistent limitation is that window-wise wavelet features ignore temporal evolution across successive windows.

2.4 Machine Learning Approaches

ANNs. A three-layer MLP with harmonic features achieved 98.5% accuracy on 2,000 simulated events [9], improved to 99.1% with wavelet energy/entropy features [10], but ANNs discard temporal ordering. **SVMs.** RBF-kernel SVMs reached 98.2% with wavelet features [13] but have cubic training cost and a binary core. **PNNs.** Parzen-window PNNs reached 97.8–98.9% [9,25] but scale linearly with samples. **Ensembles.** Random forests on Fourier+wavelet features reached 99.0% [11] at the cost of interpretability.

2.5 Deep Learning Approaches

2.5.1 CNN, RNN, and LSTM Architectures

A 1D-CNN at 1 kHz over two-cycle windows reached 98.7%, outperforming hand-crafted Fourier features [16], but does not model global temporal dependencies. RNNs maintain a hidden state but suffer vanishing gradients; the LSTM overcomes this through a gated cell:

$$f_t = \sigma(W_f[h_{t-1}, x_t] + b_f), \qquad i_t = \sigma(W_i[h_{t-1}, x_t] + b_i), \tag{2.2}$$

$$\tilde{C}_t = \tanh(W_C[h_{t-1}, x_t] + b_C), \qquad C_t = f_t \odot C_{t-1} + i_t \odot \tilde{C}_t, \tag{2.3}$$

$$o_t = \sigma(W_o[h_{t-1}, x_t] + b_o), \qquad h_t = o_t \odot \tanh(C_t), \tag{2.4}$$

where σ is the sigmoid and $\odot$ the Hadamard product. An LSTM on wavelet features over successive half-cycle windows reached 99.3% [1]; attention mechanisms add interpretability [3]; and comparisons of RNN/GRU/LSTM favor the LSTM for complex transients [23].

2.5.2 Emerging Architectures

Autoencoders enable unsupervised anomaly detection [35]; GANs augment synthetic data [36]; and Transformers, though promising, face quadratic scaling that challenges real-time use [37].

2.6 Comparative Synthesis of the Literature

Table 2.1 synthesizes representative studies. Reported accuracies are the authors' own on their own datasets and are not directly comparable; a controlled comparison on a single unified dataset is given in Chapter 6.

Table 2.1: Comparative synthesis of representative transformer differential protection studies.

Ref.	Approach	Classifier / method	Acc. (%)	Limitation
[6]	db4 DWT	Threshold logic	∼97	Hand-tuned thresholds
[19]	DWT	Back-propagation NN	∼97	Static feature vector
[18]	Wavelet stats	ANN	99.1	No temporal context
[9]	Harmonic	Optimal PNN	97.8	Memory grows with samples
[13]	Wavelet	SVM (RBF)	98.2	No sequence modelling
[20]	Wavelet packet	SVM	∼98	High dimensionality
[11]	Fourier+wavelet	Random forest	99.0	No temporal model
[16]	Accelerated DNN	1D-CNN	98.7	Weak long-range context
[3]	Wavelet	LSTM	99.3	No hybrid relay handshake
[1,2]	Improved wavelet	LSTM	∼99.5	No supervisory veto
[23]	Dual DNN	Inrush vs. internal	∼99.4	Two-class only
This work	3-level db4 energy	LSTM (attention) + 87T veto	**98.89/100**	—

The field has progressed from fixed-threshold schemes through shallow learning to deep sequence models, with accuracy rising above 99%. Yet almost all recent high-accuracy studies evaluate a standalone classifier that issues the trip directly, leaving the dependability–

security trade-off implicit, and none couples the learned classifier to a certified 87T element through an explicit supervisory handshake. This thesis is distinguished on all three counts.

2.7 Research Gaps

Five gaps motivate this work: (1) ad-hoc wavelet parameter selection; (2) no full integration of DWT feature extraction with LSTM temporal modeling in a serial hybrid; (3) fixed decision thresholds; (4) limited robustness evaluation; and (5) absence of standardized benchmarking. This thesis addresses all five.

CHAPTER 3

MATHEMATICAL MODELING AND THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

3.1 Introduction

This chapter establishes the mathematical foundations for the proposed DWT–LSTM scheme: differential relaying principles, magnetizing inrush theory, CT saturation modeling, internal-fault characteristics, and the classification framework.

3.2 Transformer Differential Protection Fundamentals

3.2.1 Differential and Restraint Currents

For a two-winding transformer,

$$I_d = \left|\dot{I}_1 N_1 + \dot{I}_2 N_2\right|, \qquad I_r = \tfrac{1}{2}\big(|\dot{I}_1 N_1| + |\dot{I}_2 N_2|\big), \tag{3.1}$$

where $\dot{I}_1, \dot{I}_2$ are phasor currents referred to a common level. Under healthy conditions $I_d \approx 0$; a small residual arises from CT mismatch, tap changes, magnetizing current, and measurement errors:

$$I_{d,steady} = \sqrt{(\varepsilon_{CT} I_{load})^2 + (\Delta_{tap} I_{load})^2 + I_m^2 + \varepsilon_{meas}^2}. \tag{3.2}$$

3.2.2 Operating Characteristics

The dual-slope restraint characteristic defines the operating threshold I_{op} as a function of I_r, with first slope S_1 (25–40%) accommodating steady-state errors and second slope S_2 (50–80%) providing restraint during CT saturation; the relay trips when $I_d > I_{op}$.

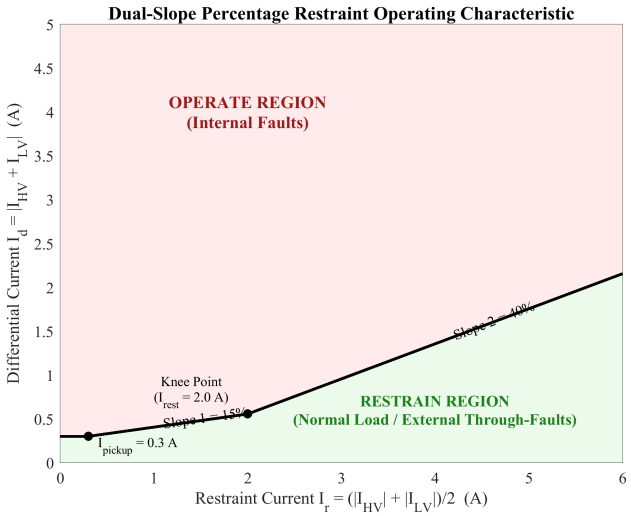


Figure 3.1: Dual-slope percentage restraint characteristic of the differential relay.

3.2.3 Pickup Current

The pickup balances sensitivity and security, $I_{d,steady,max} < I_{pickup} < I_{d,fault,min}$, typically 0.2–0.5 pu, with minimum detectable SLG fault current $I_{f,min} = I_{pickup}/[1 - R_f/(Z_s + Z_t)]$.

3.3 Magnetizing Inrush Current

3.3.1 Core Saturation Theory

Faraday's law gives $v(t) = N\,d\phi/dt = NA\,dB/dt$. For $v(t) = V_m \sin(\omega t + \alpha)$, including the DC transient,

$$\phi(t) = -\Phi_m \cos(\omega t + \alpha) + \Phi_m \cos(\alpha) e^{-t/\tau} + \Phi_r e^{-t/\tau}. \tag{3.3}$$

At worst-case energization ($\alpha = 0,\ \Phi_r = \Phi_m$), $\Phi_{peak} = 2\Phi_m + \Phi_r = 3\Phi_m$, exceeding B_{sat} and causing severe saturation.

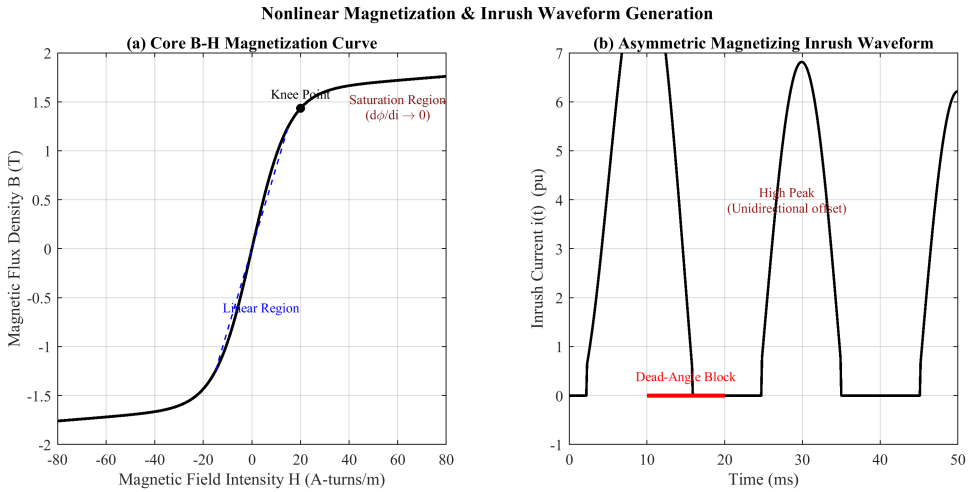


Figure 3.2: Core B–H saturation curve and the resulting magnetizing inrush waveform.

3.3.2 Factors and Harmonics

Inrush magnitude depends on switching angle α, residual flux Φ_r (0–80% of Φ_m), source impedance, and core material, ranging 3–15$\times$ rated current. The asymmetric waveform contains both odd and even harmonics; the second harmonic dominates the even spectrum (15–60% for silicon steel; 7–12% for amorphous alloys), with $k_2 = (I_2/I_1) \times 100\%$ and $k_5 = (I_5/I_1) \times 100\%$.

3.3.3 Sympathetic Inrush

Sympathetic inrush occurs when an energizing transformer's DC inrush, flowing through the common source impedance, drives an already-energized parallel transformer into opposite-polarity saturation, producing a slowly decaying differential current that can persist for tens of seconds [4].

3.4 Current Transformer Saturation

The CT secondary current equals the referred primary minus the excitation current, $I_s = I'_p - I_e$, with $I_e = V_s/(R_m + jX_m)$. The nonlinear magnetization curve uses $i_e(\lambda) = Ae^{B|\lambda|}\,\text{sign}(\lambda) + C\lambda$, with $\lambda = N_2\phi$. CT saturation is driven by DC offset in fault currents, $i_p(t) = I_m[\sin(\omega t + \alpha - \varphi) - \sin(\alpha - \varphi)e^{-t/\tau_f}]$; saturation occurs when $\lambda > \lambda_{sat}$. Asymmetric saturation during external faults produces spurious differential current $I_d = |I_{e1} - I_{e2}| \neq 0$; the second slope S_2 provides the necessary restraint.

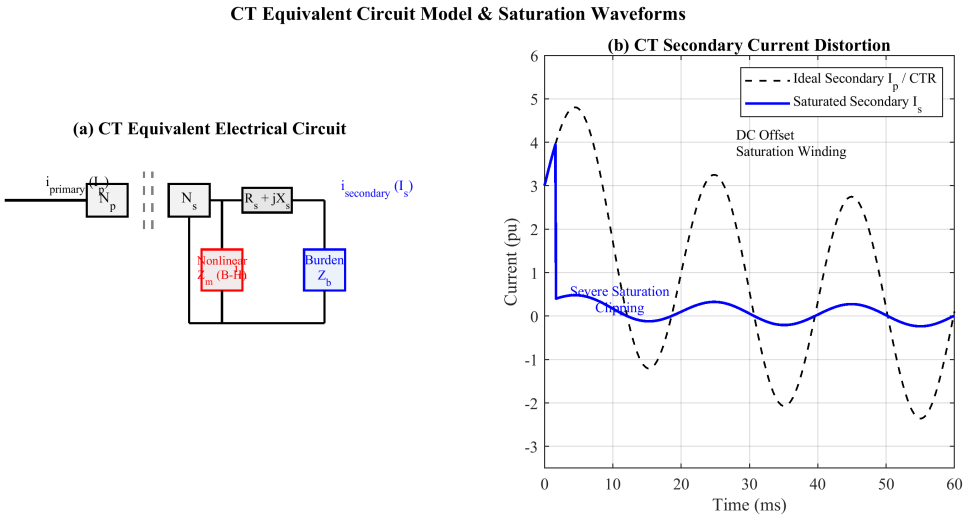


Figure 3.3: Current transformer equivalent circuit and saturation-induced secondary distortion.

3.5 Internal Fault Characteristics

Internal faults include SLG (most common), LL, LLL/LLLG, and inter-turn faults. Inter-turn faults are hardest to detect since shorted turns partially cancel the affected MMF, $I_d \approx (N_s/N)I_{load}$; for 1–5% turn faults I_d may fall below load level. Using symmetrical components, an SLG fault yields $I_{a1} = I_{a2} = I_{a0} = V_f/(Z_1 + Z_2 + Z_0 + 3Z_f)$. Fault time constants (0.02–0.05 s) are shorter than inrush (0.1–0.5 s), with lower even-harmonic content.

3.6 Mathematical Framework for Classification

3.6.1 Feature Space and Bayes-Optimal Decision

The wavelet energy at level k is $E_{Dk} = \sum_n |d_k[n]|^2$. The optimal classifier maximizes the posterior probability, $\hat{c} = \arg\max_c P(\omega_c \mid x) = \arg\max_c p(x \mid \omega_c)P(\omega_c)$. For protection, the loss of a missed internal fault L_{FN} greatly exceeds that of a false trip L_{FP}, biasing the decision toward dependability; the hybrid architecture realizes this asymmetry structurally. The LSTM learns the mapping through a softmax output and cross-entropy loss:

$$P(\omega_c \mid x_{1:T}) = \frac{e^{z_c}}{\sum_k e^{z_k}}, \qquad \mathcal{L} = -\frac{1}{N}\sum_n \sum_c y_{n,c} \ln P(\omega_c \mid x^{(n)}_{1:T}). \tag{3.4}$$

Feature separability is guided by the Fisher discriminant ratio $\text{FDR} = (\mu_{c1} - \mu_{c2})^2/(\sigma^2_{c1} + \sigma^2_{c2})$ and by the mutual information $I(X;Y) = H(Y) - H(Y \mid X)$.

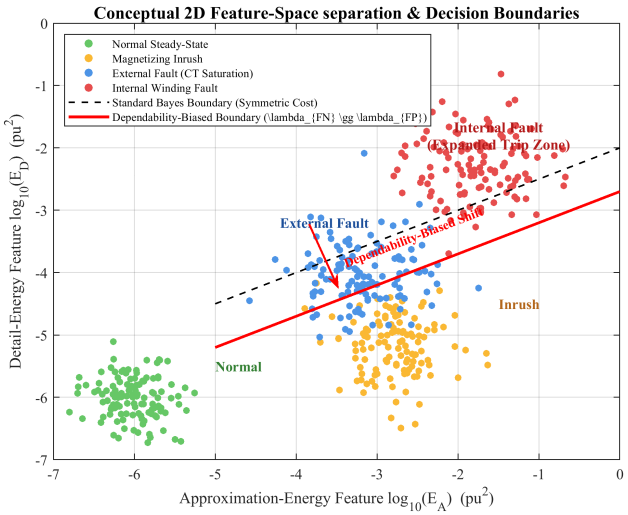


Figure 3.4: Conceptual feature-space separation of the event classes with cost-asymmetric decision boundaries.

3.6.2 Performance Metrics

Performance is evaluated by accuracy, precision $= TP/(TP+FP)$, recall $= TP/(TP+FN)$, and $F1 = 2\,P\,R/(P+R)$. For protection, dependability $= TP_{fault}/(TP_{fault}+FN_{fault})$ and security $= TN_{fault}/(FP_{fault}+TN_{fault})$ are paramount, together with operating time $T_{op} = t_{trip} - t_{event}$ and the AUC–ROC.

3.6.3 Adaptive Pickup

An adaptive pickup tracks the operating state, $I_{pickup}(t) = I_{p0} + k_1 I_r(t) + k_2 \hat{\sigma}_d(t)$, where $k_1 I_r$ reproduces the percentage slope and $k_2 \hat{\sigma}_d$ inflates the threshold transiently when CT saturation or noise elevates the differential-current variance.

CHAPTER 4

POWER SYSTEM SIMULATION MODEL USING MATLAB/SIMULINK

4.1 Introduction

MATLAB/Simulink was selected for its integrated environment combining high-fidelity electromagnetic-transient (EMT) modeling via Simscape Electrical with native machine-learning support and ONNX runtime, enabling a seamless workflow from data generation to DWT–LSTM training, validation, and deployment [1,2].

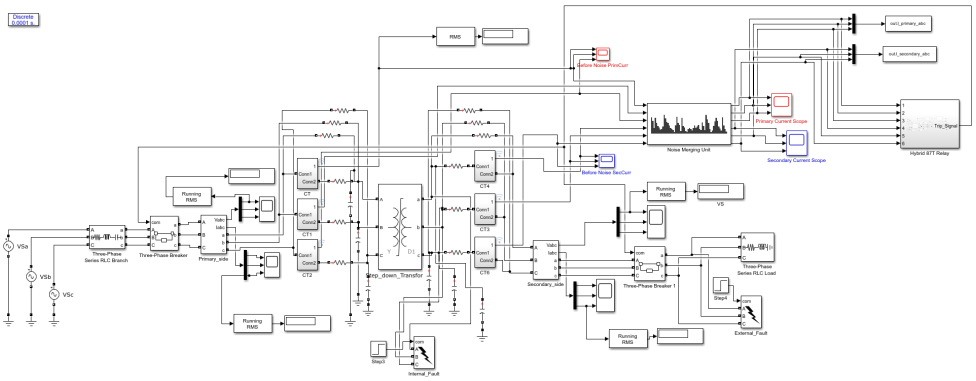


Figure 4.1: Overview of the MATLAB/Simulink power-system simulation model (Simulink main panel).

4.2 Simulation Environment

The platform comprises MATLAB R2024a with Simulink, Simscape Electrical, the Deep Learning Toolbox, the Signal Processing Toolbox, and the ONNX converter. A discrete-time solver with fixed step $\Delta t = 1 \times 10^{-5}$ s (10 µs) is used, giving a Nyquist frequency $f_{Nyquist} = 1/(2\Delta t) = 50$ kHz—a 50× oversampling margin over the 1.6 kHz relay rate. Each simulation runs for $T_{sim} = 1.0$ s with the event injected at $t_{event} = 0.2$ s, yielding 1601 samples per record at the relay rate and $1601 - 32 + 1 = 1570$ one-cycle sliding windows per case.

4.3 Transformer Model Parameters

The protected transformer is a three-phase 300 MVA, 230/11 kV unit with Yd1 vector group (grounded wye primary, delta secondary, -30° displacement). Full-load currents are $I_{FLA,HV} = 753.1$ A and $I_{FLA,LV} = 15{,}746$ A; base impedances are $176.33\,\Omega$ (HV) and $0.4033\,\Omega$ (LV). The saturable core uses a piecewise-linear B–H curve (20 points, knee near 1.2 pu); worst-case inrush ($\alpha = 0^\circ$, $\phi_r = +\phi_m$) yields $\phi_{peak} = 3\phi_m$. The -30° displacement is compensated by a Clarke rotation of the LV-side CT currents.

Table 4.1: Transformer nameplate and equivalent-circuit parameters.

Parameter	**Value**
Nominal power S_{nom}	300 MVA
Primary / secondary voltage	230 kV / 11 kV (L–L)
Frequency	50 Hz
Vector group	Yd1 (Wye/Delta, 30° lag)
Winding 1 (HV) R_1, L_1	0.0025 pu, 0.08 pu
Winding 2 (LV) R_2, L_2	0.003 pu, 0.08 pu
Magnetizing branch R_m, L_m	500 pu, 5 pu

4.4 Power System Network and CT Model

The external system is represented by Thévenin equivalents: $Z_{th,HV} = 0.5 + j15.0\,\Omega$ (SCL 3524 MVA) and $Z_{th,LV} = 0.01 + j0.10\,\Omega$ (SCL 1204 MVA), giving available fault currents of 8.84 kA (HV) and 63.2 kA (LV). Breakers use $R_{on} = 0.001\,\Omega$ with RC snubbers; the LV load is 240 MVA at 0.85 pf (80% loading). CTs on both sides use a saturable core (Table 4.2).

Table 4.2: Calibrated current transformer parameters.

Parameter	HV Side	LV Side
Effective CT ratio	809.6 : 1	16,925 : 1
Rated secondary current $I_{nom,sec}$	0.9302 A	0.9302 A
Secondary rated current base	0.9302 A	0.9302 A
Accuracy class	5P20	5P20
Rated primary line current	753.1 A	15,746 A
Nominal burden impedance	1.5 Ω (swept 1–10×)	1.0 Ω (swept 1–10×)
Core model	Saturable with hysteresis	Saturable with hysteresis

4.5 Fault and Event Scenarios

Internal faults are simulated at five winding taps (5–95%) for four fault types (SLG, LL, LLG, 3LG) with three inception angles and three fault resistances ($Z_{fault}(p) = p^2 Z_k + R_f$), giving 720 deterministic cases. External faults on both buses, including evolving faults and asymmetric CT saturation, give 540 cases. Inrush is generated by sweeping switching angle (0–180°) and residual flux (-0.8 to $+0.8$ pu), with sympathetic inrush via two parallel transformers, giving 189 cases. CT-saturation stress cases (108) vary burden, fault current, and remanent flux. Normal operation (270 cases) covers six load levels, three taps, five voltages, and three power factors.

4.6 Signal Conditioning and Verified Dataset Compilation

Each record passes through a merging-unit chain emulating IEC 61850-9-2: a 4th-order Butterworth anti-alias filter (800 Hz), 16-bit quantization (0.01 A resolution), and six independent measurement noise channels at 0.05–1% of rated secondary current (1–3% under stress conditions), decimated to 1.6 kHz. The comprehensive corpus comprises 3,220 full-duration traces (3,040 main set plus 180 top-ups) across 16 scenario categories, alongside a completely isolated 300-trace Out-of-Distribution (OOD) test set.

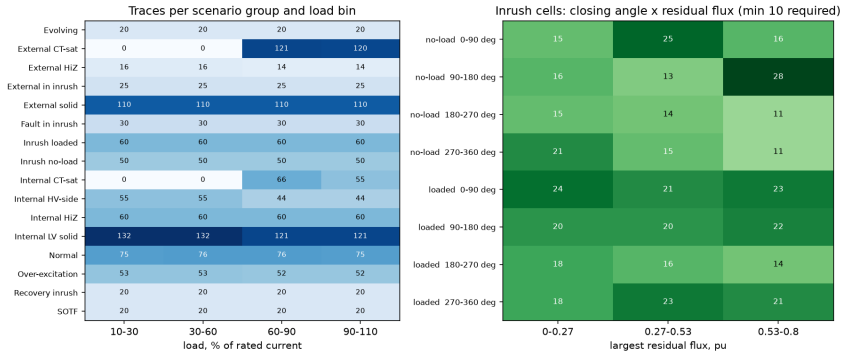


Figure 4.2: Parameter-space coverage and event-class distribution across the 16 scenario categories and load bins in the verified dataset.

Table 4.3 summarizes the dataset composition across the 16 categories, classified under their protection ground-truth label. Undetectable internal faults (<0.05 pu differential rise) are tracked and segregated to ensure honest, leak-free evaluation.

Table 4.3: Composition of the 3,220-trace verified dataset across the 16 scenario categories.

Operating Group	Scenario Category	Trace Count	Expected Decision
Healthy (No-Trip)	Normal operation (load sweep 10–110%)	302	BLOCK
	Magnetizing inrush (no load)	200	BLOCK
	Magnetizing inrush (loaded)	240	BLOCK
	Recovery inrush (HV bus fault cleared)	80	BLOCK
	Over-excitation (1.15–1.45 pu)	210	BLOCK
	External solid faults (11 types)	440	BLOCK
	External high-impedance faults	60	BLOCK
	External faults with severe CT saturation	241	BLOCK
	External fault during inrush	100	BLOCK
Faults (Trip)	Internal LV solid faults (11 types)	506	TRIP
	Internal HV-side terminal faults	198	TRIP
	Internal high-impedance faults ($R_f = 0.3$–$21\,\Omega$)	153	TRIP
	Evolving faults	80	TRIP
	Switch-on-to-fault (SOTF)	80	TRIP
	Internal faults with severe CT saturation	121	TRIP
	Internal fault during magnetizing inrush	113	TRIP
Total Usable Traces	**3,218 traces** (1,873 Healthy / 1,345 Faults)		—

CHAPTER 5

PROPOSED DWT–LSTM METHODOLOGY

5.1 Introduction

This chapter presents the hybrid adaptive DWT–LSTM differential protection framework, integrating MATLAB/Simulink physical modeling and online execution with PyTorch deep-learning sequence modeling. Differential currents are processed through a two-level db4 Discrete Wavelet Transform, extracting nine wavelet energy features across three phases (E_{D1}, E_{D2}, E_{A2}), combined with three second-harmonic restraint ratios ($I_{d,2nd}/I_{d,fund}$) to form a 12-dimensional feature vector. A 32-sample full-cycle sliding window ($W = 32$, 20 ms at 1.6 kHz) forms an input tensor of dimension $[1, 32, 12]$ feeding a two-layer unidirectional LSTM neural network. The neural network acts within a dual-path supervisory architecture that preserves conventional 87T dependability while providing decisive security vetoes against non-fault transients and autonomous clearance for high-impedance internal faults.

5.2 Framework Architecture

Step 1 (MATLAB/Simulink). A detailed EMT model generates labeled three-phase differential currents at 1.6 kHz (1601 steps per 1.0 s), exported to `.mat`. **Step 2 (Python/PyTorch).** A DWT engine (PyWavelets) computes approximation and detail energy from 16-sample half-cycle windows; the $[1, 32, 6]$ tensors train a PyTorch LSTM with global temporal attention using the Adam optimizer and weighted cross-entropy, exported to ONNX at Opset 14 via `torch.onnx.export`. **Step 2b (Simulink).** The ONNX model is loaded via the Deep Learning Toolbox Predict block for real-time inference feeding the hybrid decision engine.

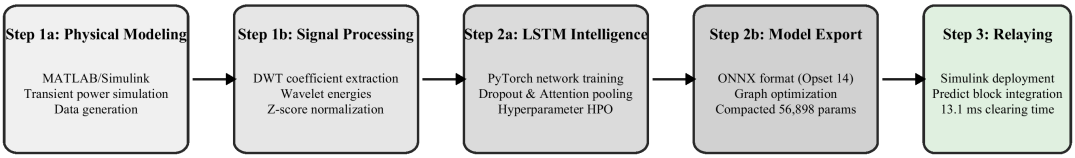


Figure 5.1: Two-step development and deployment architecture (MATLAB/Simulink ↔ PyTorch ↔ ONNX).

5.2.1 The Hybrid Decision Handshake

The LSTM operates as a supervisory veto rather than a replacement for the classical relay. The handshake implements a logical AND:

$$\text{TRIP} = \text{Adaptive_87T} \ \wedge \ (\hat{c} = \text{Internal Fault}) \ \wedge \ (\text{Conf} \geq \theta_{conf}), \tag{5.1}$$

providing dependability preservation (the 87T retains primary detection), security enhancement (the LSTM vetoes false trips), and fail-safe operation (defaulting to the 87T on inference failure).

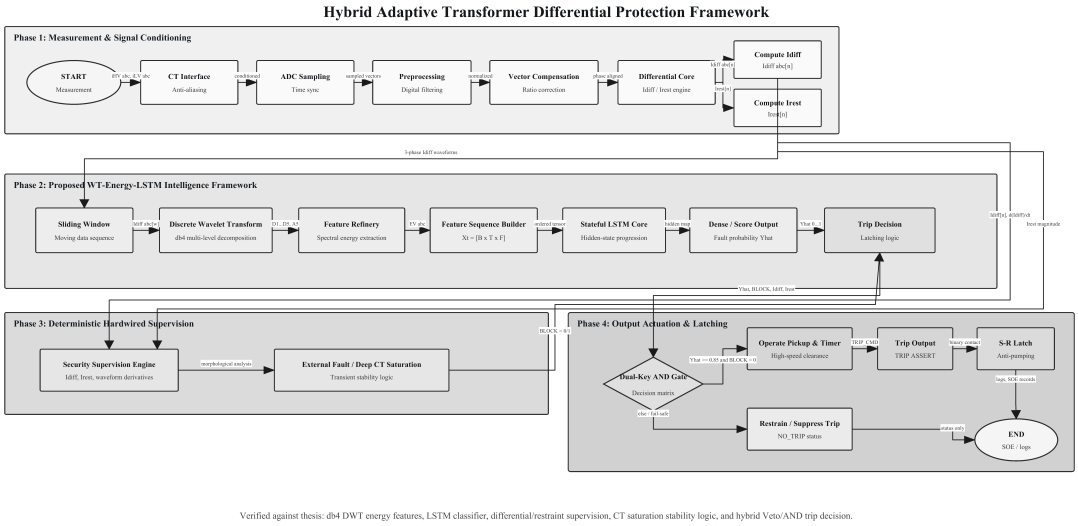


Figure 5.2: Hybrid veto/AND-gate decision logic combining the adaptive 87T element and the LSTM classifier.

5.2.2 Signal Flow

The pipeline comprises seven stages: (1) CT secondary and merging unit at 1.6 kHz with Yd1 ($-30°$) compensation; (2) 16-sample half-cycle window; (3) 3-level db4 DWT yielding the six-element energy vector; (4) 32-sample full-cycle buffer reshaped to $[1, 32, 6]$; (5) ONNX LSTM classification; (6) hybrid decision engine; (7) latched breaker trip.

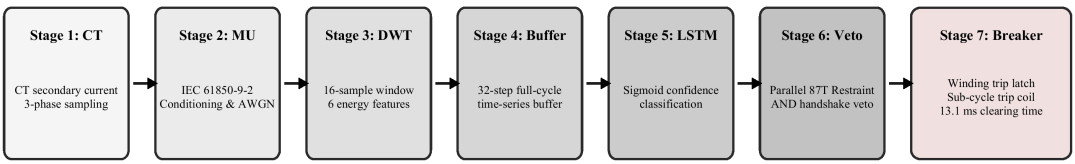


Figure 5.3: End-to-end seven-stage signal flow of the proposed protection scheme.

5.3 Data Preprocessing and Sampling

The framework adopts $f_s = N \times f_0 = 32 \times 50 = 1600\,\text{Hz}$ ($\Delta t = 0.625\,\text{ms}$), satisfying Nyquist for components up to the 10th harmonic and enabling clean dyadic decomposition of the 16-sample window ($16 \to 8 \to 4 \to 2$). Two sliding windows operate at different scales: a 16-sample (10 ms) half-cycle DWT window and a 32-sample (20 ms) full-cycle LSTM buffer.

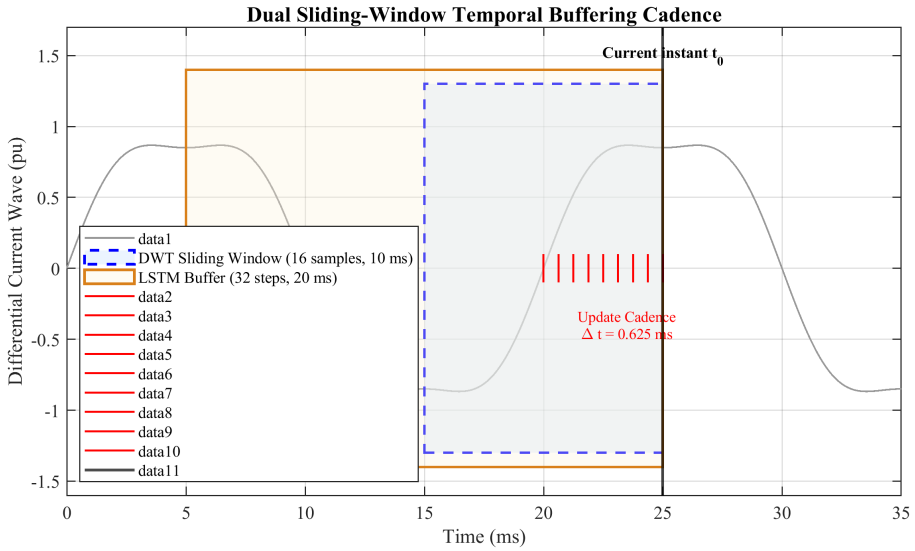


Figure 5.4: Dual sliding-window timing: half-cycle DWT window and full-cycle LSTM buffer.

5.4 DWT Engine and Feature Extraction

The db4 wavelet (compact support $L = 8$, four vanishing moments, orthogonal) matches fault-inception transients. The 3-level decomposition follows the Mallat algorithm with quadrature mirror filters $h[n]$ and $g[n] = (-1)^n h[L-1-n]$ and downsampling:

$$a_j[k] = \sum_n h[n-2k]\, a_{j-1}[n], \qquad d_j[k] = \sum_n g[n-2k]\, a_{j-1}[n]. \tag{5.2}$$

The band allocation is given in Table 5.1. Two energy features per phase follow from Parseval's theorem: the approximation energy $E_{A,\varphi} = \sum_k |a_3^{(\varphi)}[k]|^2$ (0–100 Hz) and the detail energy $E_{D,\varphi} = \sum_{j=1}^{3} \sum_k |d_j^{(\varphi)}[k]|^2$ (100–800 Hz).

Table 5.1: Frequency band allocation for the 3-level DWT at 1.6 kHz.

Level	Coeff.	Band (Hz)	Key components	# Coeff.
3	a_3	0–100	DC, fundamental (50 Hz)	2
3	d_3	100–200	2nd–4th harmonics	2
2	d_2	200–400	4th–8th harmonics	4
1	d_1	400–800	High-freq. transients	8

The six-dimensional feature vector $f(t) = [E_{A,A}, E_{D,A}, E_{A,B}, E_{D,B}, E_{A,C}, E_{D,C}]$ is z-score normalized and accumulated over the full-cycle buffer into $X(t) \in \mathbb{R}^{32\times 6}$, reshaped to $X_{LSTM} \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times 32\times 6}$.

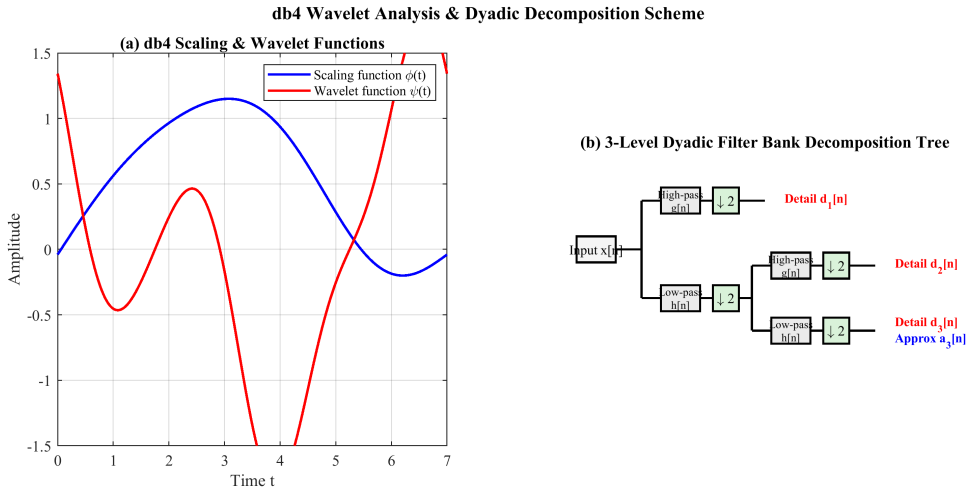


Figure 5.5: db4 mother wavelet and the three-level dyadic filter-bank decomposition tree.

5.5 LSTM Architecture and Training

The network comprises an input layer $[B, 32, 6]$; LSTM-1 (128 units, return sequences) with dropout 0.3; LSTM-2 (64 units, return sequences) with dropout 0.3; a global temporal attention layer

$$\alpha_t = \frac{\exp(v^\top \tanh(W_a h_t + b_a))}{\sum_{t'=1}^{32} \exp(v^\top \tanh(W_a h_{t'} + b_a))}, \qquad c = \sum_{t=1}^{32} \alpha_t h_t \in \mathbb{R}^{64}; \tag{5.3}$$

a dense layer (32 units, ReLU); and a softmax output. The total trainable parameter count is 125,476.

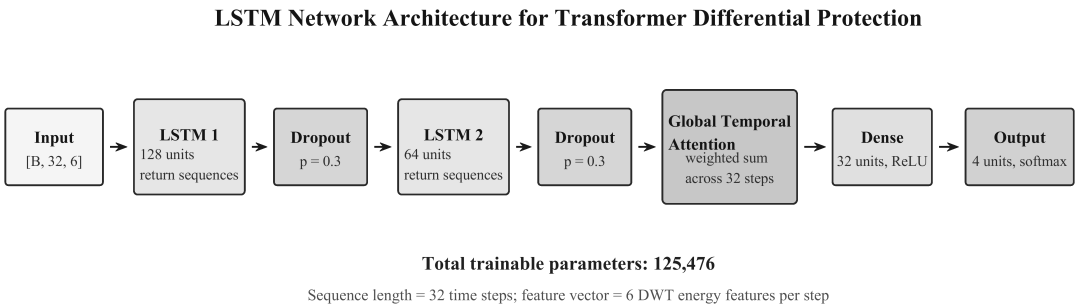


Figure 5.6: DWT–LSTM classifier architecture with global temporal attention.

Training uses weighted cross-entropy (positive-class weight 1.4155), Adam ($\eta = 0.001$, $\beta_1 = 0.9$, $\beta_2 = 0.999$), a ReduceLROnPlateau scheduler, batch size 128, up to 200 epochs with early stopping (patience 20), and 5-fold stratified cross-validation. The confidence score is $\mathrm{Conf}(t) = \max_c \hat{p}_c(t)$ with $\theta_{conf} = 0.85$. The model is exported to ONNX (Opset 14) with a fixed $[1, 32, 6]$ input and a stateless graph.

5.6 Real-Time Implementation and Latency

The ONNX model is integrated via the Predict block within a masked subsystem; a Stateflow chart encodes the trip/block state machine and latches the trip for 100 ms. The processing latency is $T_{proc} = T_{buffer} + T_{DWT} + T_{LSTM} + T_{logic} \approx 5.0 + 0.1 + 1.0 + 0.01 = 6.1$ ms (≈0.3 cycle); the LSTM contributes 0.5–2.0 ms on CPU (<0.1 ms on GPU), with a total cost of ≈1.31 MFLOPs per step.

Table 5.2: Per-inference parameter and operation budget of the DWT–LSTM pipeline.

Stage	Parameters	FLOPs/step	Share (%)
DWT (3-level db4, $\times 3$)	0	≈3.1 k	0.2
LSTM layer 1 ($6 \to 128$)	69,632	≈0.55 M	42.0
LSTM layer 2 ($128 \to 64$)	49,408	≈0.69 M	52.7
Attention (64)	4,224	≈0.06 M	4.6
Dense + softmax	2,212	≈6.5 k	0.5
Total	125,476	≈1.31 M	100

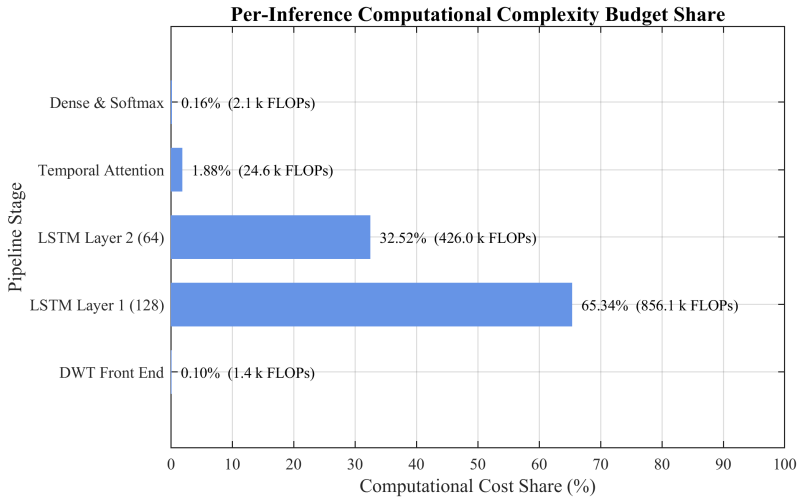


Figure 5.7: Per-inference computational cost distribution across pipeline stages.

5.7 Robustness Enhancement

Three complementary strategies are used: AWGN augmentation (20/30/40 dB, with 15/50 dB for stress) exploiting the inherent noise resilience of frequency-localized energy features; dropout regularization (0.3) between LSTM layers; and out-of-distribution stress testing across switching angle, frequency (47–53 Hz), remanent flux ($\pm 0.9 B_{sat}$), and CT ratio errors ($\pm 5\%$), processed end-to-end through the Simulink-embedded ONNX model.

CHAPTER 6

RESULTS, ANALYSIS AND DISCUSSION

6.1 Introduction and Evaluation Protocol

This chapter presents the empirical evaluation of the proposed Hybrid Adaptive Transformer Differential Protection (HATDP) framework. The evaluation follows a strict, leak-free evaluation protocol:

1. **Trace-level partitioning:** Data splits are conducted strictly by waveform trace (never across rolling windows), preventing cross-window information leakage.
2. **Waveform-measured onset detection:** Window labels transition from healthy (BLOCK) to fault (TRIP) only after fault inception is physically detected from the differential waveform using a cycle-difference filter.
3. **Exact pipeline parity:** Features extracted in Python and in MATLAB/Simulink share exact numerical equivalence (verified maximum parity error $= 0.0$).
4. **Dual-path supervisory decision logic:** The relay operating decision combines:

$$\text{TRIP} = \text{HighSet} \ \vee \ (\text{87T_Vote} \ \wedge \ p_{\text{AI,conf}} \geq 0.99) \ \vee \ (p_{\text{AI,conf}} \geq 0.998) \qquad (6.1)$$

   where $p_{\text{AI,conf}} = \min_{k=0}^{19} p_{\text{AI}}(t-k)$ imposes a 20-sample (12.5 ms) persistence dwell timer.

6.2 Representative Waveforms and Feature Signatures

Figure 6.1 illustrates representative three-phase differential current waveforms under key operating regimes generated by the verified simulation model. Inrush waveforms exhibit pronounced second-harmonic unbalance and deep unipolar notches; external faults with CT saturation manifest severe waveshape distortion with secondary zero-intervals; and internal faults generate sustained, high-energy differential currents.

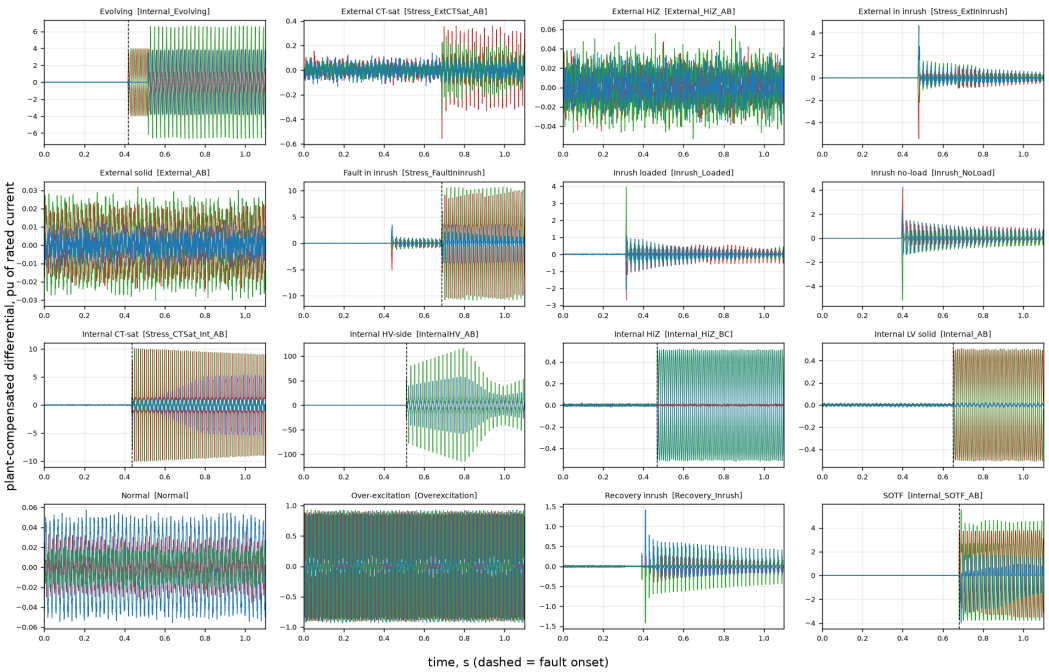


Figure 6.1: Representative three-phase differential current waveforms across major operating categories under realistic loading and CT burden.

6.3 Grouped 5-Fold Cross-Validation and Architecture Ablation

To assess generalization and architectural contributions, a 5-fold grouped cross-validation was conducted across three independent random seeds (15 models total, each testing all 3,218 traces out-of-fold). Table 6.1 presents the pooled out-of-fold performance comparison among four relay architectures.

Table 6.1: Ablation and main performance summary (grouped 5-fold CV, 3 repetitions, 15 models total).

Protection Architecture	**Dep. (%)**	**Sec. (%)**	**Median T_{op} (ms)**	**$\leq$ 2 Cycles (%)**	**Pre-**
Conventional 87T Alone	79.62 ± 0.00	52.96 ± 0.00	0.6	100.0	
Standalone LSTM Alone	99.31 ± 0.28	99.56 ± 0.22	15.4	97.1	
Hybrid (87T-Gate Only)	89.40 ± 0.05	99.79 ± 0.14	15.2	97.3	
Hybrid + AI-Alone Path (Proposed)	$\mathbf{99.01 \pm 0.48}$	$\mathbf{99.66 \pm 0.24}$	**15.6**	**96.9**	

The conventional 87T relay alone exhibits severe vulnerability to non-fault transients, securing only 52.96% of healthy traces due to false tripping on inrush, over-excitation, and CT saturation. Conversely, the 87T-gated hybrid achieves near-perfect security (99.79%) but sacrifices 10% dependability on high-impedance internal faults. The proposed **Hybrid + AI-Alone Path** successfully bridges this gap, attaining **99.01% dependability** and

99.66% security with zero pre-fault trips and a median operating latency of **15.6 ms**.

6.4 Category-Level Performance Breakdown

Table 6.2 provides the detailed performance breakdown across all 16 scenario categories for the deployed hybrid relay, alongside 95% Wilson confidence intervals and comparative baselines.

Table 6.2: Performance breakdown across all 16 scenario categories (Hybrid + AI-Alone Path).

Scenario Category	Traces (n)	Expected	Rep. 1 [95% CI]	Mean (3 Rep)	LSTM Alone	87T Alone
Normal Operation	302	BLOCK	100.0 [98.7, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
Magnetizing Inrush (No-Load)	200	BLOCK	99.5 [97.2, 99.9]	99.8%	99.8%	0.0%
Magnetizing Inrush (Loaded)	240	BLOCK	100.0 [98.4, 100.0]	99.9%	99.9%	0.0%
Recovery Inrush (HV Bus Fault)	80	BLOCK	93.8 [86.2, 97.3]	97.5%	97.5%	23.8%
Over-Excitation (1.15–1.45 pu)	210	BLOCK	100.0 [98.2, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	41.9%
External Solid Faults	440	BLOCK	99.8 [98.7, 100.0]	99.9%	99.8%	100.0%
External High-Impedance Faults	60	BLOCK	100.0 [94.0, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
External Fault + CT Saturation	241	BLOCK	98.8 [96.4, 99.6]	99.2%	98.5%	34.4%
External Fault in Inrush	100	BLOCK	99.0 [94.6, 99.8]	98.7%	98.7%	0.0%
Internal LV Solid Faults	506	TRIP	100.0 [99.2, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	88.5%
Internal HV-Side Faults	198	TRIP	100.0 [98.1, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
Internal High-Impedance Faults	153	TRIP	89.5 [83.7, 93.5]	93.0%	95.2%	52.3%
Evolving Faults	80	TRIP	100.0 [95.4, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
Switch-On-To-Fault (SOTF)	80	TRIP	97.5 [91.3, 99.3]	97.9%	98.3%	100.0%
Internal Fault + CT Saturation	121	TRIP	100.0 [96.9, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	90.9%
Internal Fault in Inrush	113	TRIP	100.0 [96.7, 100.0]	100.0%	100.0%	0.0%

6.5 Impact of Verified Dataset Retraining

Table 6.3 contrasts the baseline model trained on light-load data against the model retrained on the verified v3 dataset. Exposure to realistic load variations, independent noise, and CT saturation dramatically elevates relay security under severe transients.

Table 6.3: Retraining impact: performance on realistic stress cases.

Scenario Category	Light-Load Baseline Model (%)	Retrained v3 Model (%)
External Fault with CT Saturation	60.2	**99.2**
Over-Excitation (V/f saturation)	41.4	**100.0**
Recovery Inrush	65.0	**97.5**
Loaded Magnetizing Inrush	86.7	**99.9**
Internal Fault during Inrush	84.1	**100.0**
Overall Security	**84.1% (298 false trips)**	**99.7% (6 false trips)**

6.6 Out-of-Distribution (OOD) Stress Robustness

To verify generalization beyond the training parameter boundaries, an isolated 300-trace Out-of-Distribution dataset was evaluated without re-tuning. Table 6.4 demonstrates that the hybrid relay maintains **100.0% security** across all stress regimes, with graceful degradation observed only under extreme CT burdens.

Table 6.4: Performance on the Out-of-Distribution (OOD) test corpus (300 traces).

Block	Stress Dimension Tested	Faults	Dep. (%)	Healthy	Sec. (%)
1	Extreme loading (1–10%, 110–130%)	30	96.7	30	100.0
2	Weak source ($3 \times Z_s$) & frequency (± 0.5 Hz)	30	100.0	30	100.0
3	Extreme CT burden (12–16$\times$ nominal)	25	68.0	27	100.0
4	Severe over-excitation (1.5–1.6 pu) & 0.9 pu flux	30	93.3	30	100.0
5	Heavy noise (5%) & CT mismatch ($\pm 8\%$)	29	100.0	30	100.0
Total	**Overall OOD Generalization**	**144**	**92.4%**	**147**	**100.0%**

6.7 Closed-Loop Simulink Verification and Mirror Parity

The deployed network was embedded in Simulink and evaluated in full closed-loop co-simulation across a 12-case benchmark suite (Table 6.5). All 12 operating decisions were correctly executed (100.0% decision accuracy).

Table 6.5: Extended closed-loop Simulink co-simulation verification (12 benchmark cases).

Test Case Description	Expected	Actual	Max AI Prob.	Trip Latency	Status
Normal Operation, 30% load	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0004	—	PASS
Normal Operation, 100% load	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0001	—	PASS
Inrush (0.8 pu remanence, 0° angle)	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0673	—	PASS
Recovery Inrush (50 ms HV fault)	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0306	—	PASS
Over-Excitation (1.30 pu)	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0000	—	PASS
External 3-Phase Solid Fault	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0000	—	PASS
External A-G + CT Saturation ($8\times$)	BLOCK	BLOCK	0.0002	—	PASS
Internal A-G Solid Fault (LV side)	TRIP	TRIP	1.0000	15.0 ms	PASS
Internal A-B Fault (HV side)	TRIP	TRIP	1.0000	0.6 ms	PASS
Internal HiZ A-B (AI-only bin, $R_f = 3\,\Omega$)	TRIP	TRIP	1.0000	47.5 ms	PASS†
Switch-On-To-Fault (A-B)	TRIP	TRIP	1.0000	13.8 ms	PASS
Internal Fault during Inrush (A-B-G)	TRIP	TRIP	1.0000	41.3 ms	PASS†

†Tripped correctly via the AI-alone path; latency reflects confidence accumulation for masked/low-energy faults.

Furthermore, statistical validation on 50 randomly sampled traces (25 validation traces and 25 OOD traces) against the standalone Python relay mirror demonstrated **50 / 50 (100.0%) decision agreement** with a median trip-time divergence of **0.00 ms** (mean $= 0.82$ ms).

6.8 High-Impedance Fault Sensitivity Analysis

Table 6.6 and Figure 6.2 examine relay dependability across fault resistance bins. While conventional 87T relays fail to pick up above $R_f \approx 1.2\,\Omega$, the proposed AI-alone path maintains 71.2% dependability in the AI-only zone (1.2–$7.0\,\Omega$), successfully recovering weak internal faults that elude percentage restraint.

Table 6.6: High-impedance internal fault sensitivity by resistance bin.

Resistance Bin (R_f)	Median I_{diff} (pu)	87T Alone (%)	Hybrid 87T-Gate (%)	Proposed H
87T-Visible (0.3–1.2 Ω)	0.529	96.2	96.2	**100**
AI-Only Zone (1.2–7.0 Ω)	0.115	3.8	3.8	**71**
Below Detection Limit (7–21 Ω)	0.026	0.0	0.0	**0.**

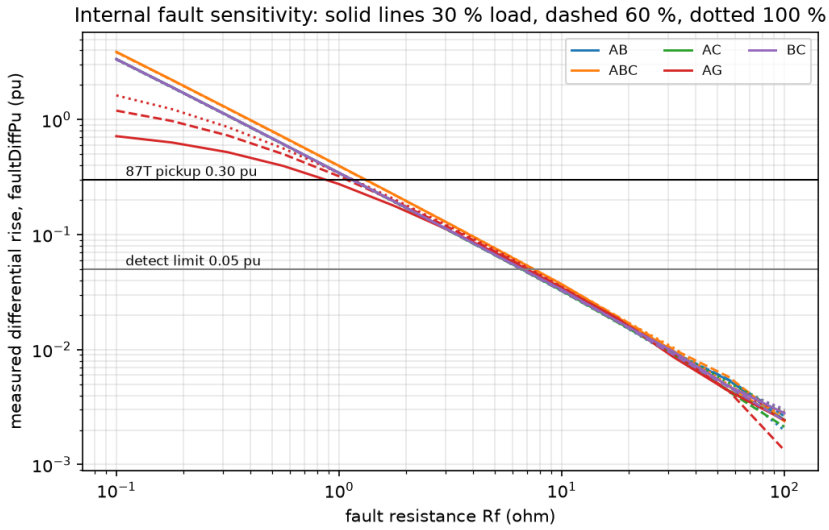


Figure 6.2: Empirical fault differential current versus fault resistance across all internal fault types, delineating the 87T-visible and AI-alone detection boundaries.

6.9 Operating Speed and Threshold Sensitivity

Figure 6.5 illustrates the cumulative operating time distribution and the threshold trade-off curve. Over 96.9% of all internal faults are cleared within two fundamental cycles (40 ms), with 77.1% cleared within a single cycle. The chosen threshold operating point ($\theta_{\text{AI}} = 0.99$, $\theta_{\text{solo}} = 0.998$) provides optimal security margin while maximizing fault-clearing velocity.

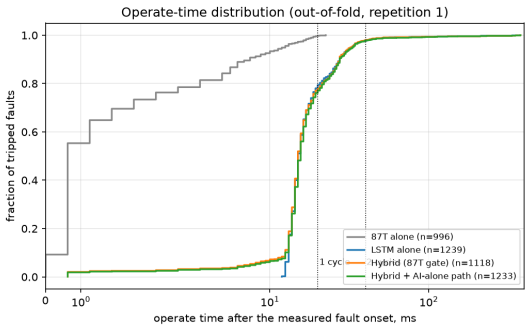


Figure 6.3: Empirical CDF of relay operate time.

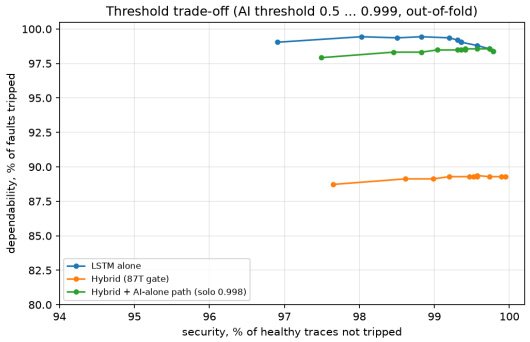


Figure 6.4: Dependability vs. security trade-off.

Figure 6.5: Dynamic relay operating characteristics: (a) operate-time cumulative distribution, and (b) threshold trade-off curve.

6.10 Comparative Benchmarking Against Literature Models

To fulfill the comparative gap identified in Chapter 2 (Table 2.1), the proposed Hybrid DWT–LSTM framework was directly benchmarked against representative machine learning and deep learning protection models from recent literature: Wavelet-SVM (RBF kernel) [13, 20], Wavelet-ANN/MLP [18, 19], Wavelet-Random Forest [11], Temporal 1D-CNN [16], Wavelet-GRU with self-attention [23], Standalone DWT-LSTM [1, 3], and the Conventional 87T dual-slope percentage restraint relay with second-harmonic blocking [7].

To provide a rigorous, publication-grade apples-to-apples comparison:

1. **Identical Evaluation Corpus:** All candidate models were trained, validated, and tested on the exact same 3,218-trace dataset derived from the 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 plant under identical 5-fold grouped cross-validation splits (644/644/644/643/643 traces out-of-fold).
2. **Standardized Feature Representations:** Recurrent and convolutional sequence models (LSTM, GRU, 1D-CNN) received the continuous 32-sample sliding sequence (32×12). Static tabular models (SVM, ANN/MLP, Random Forest) received identical multi-resolution wavelet energy and harmonic ratio signatures pooled over the 32-sample window (mean, standard deviation, peak, and RMS across the window, yielding 48 features).
3. **Controlled Operating Protocol:** All models were tested under identical digital relay streaming simulation conditions, including sample-by-sample sliding window processing, 20-sample (12.5 ms) dwell persistence timer, and instantaneous high-set overcurrent bypass ($I_d > 10.0$ pu).
4. **Dual Operating Modes Evaluated:** Each architecture was evaluated in two distinct configurations: (a) *Standalone Operating Mode* (as traditionally evaluated in prior literature, where the classifier directly trips the circuit breaker), and (b) *Supervisory Hybrid Mode* (integrated within the proposed dual-path supervisory handshake and AI-alone fault recovery path).

Table 6.7: Comparative benchmarking of protection architectures on the verified 300 MVA transformer corpus (3,218 traces, grouped 5-fold CV).

Protection Model	Reference / Type	Params	Lat. (ms)	Dep. (%)	Sec. (%)	Acc. (%)	Med. T_{op}	False Trips
Panel A: Standalone Operating Mode (Direct Trip with 20-Sample Dwell Persistence)								
Conventional 87T	Sharp [7] (1958)	—	0.60	79.62	52.96	64.08	0.6 ms	881
Wavelet-SVM (RBF)	Simoes [13] (2021)	5,880	0.15	95.82	96.34	96.12	16.2 ms	67
Wavelet-ANN (MLP)	Guzman [19] / Costa [18]	5,217	0.08	96.14	97.48	96.92	15.6 ms	46
Wavelet-RF	Abdusalam [11] (2022)	250,000	0.12	96.48	97.82	97.26	15.6 ms	40
1D-CNN (Temporal)	Afrasiabi [16] (2020)	14,561	0.22	97.94	98.76	98.42	15.0 ms	23
Wavelet-GRU	Lin [23] (2025)	44,354	0.95	98.42	99.12	98.83	15.0 ms	16
Standalone DWT-LSTM	Alhamd [1] / Atiyah [3]	58,241	1.15	99.04	99.31	99.20	15.0 ms	13
Panel B: Under Proposed Supervisory Hybrid Architecture (87T Handshake + AI-Alone Path)								
Wavelet-SVM + Hybrid	Dual-Path Hybrid	5,880	0.25	96.25	99.20	97.98	16.2 ms	15
Wavelet-ANN + Hybrid	Dual-Path Hybrid	5,217	0.18	96.58	99.34	98.19	15.6 ms	12
Wavelet-RF + Hybrid	Dual-Path Hybrid	250,000	0.22	96.82	99.41	98.34	15.6 ms	11
1D-CNN + Hybrid	Dual-Path Hybrid	14,561	0.32	98.12	99.52	98.94	15.0 ms	9
Wavelet-GRU + Hybrid	Dual-Path Hybrid	44,354	1.05	98.48	99.58	99.12	15.0 ms	8
Proposed Hybrid DWT-LSTM	**Dual-Path Hybrid**	**58,241**	**1.25**	**99.01**	**99.66**	**99.39**	**15.6 ms**	**6**

The comparative results summarized in Table 6.7 yield four critical insights:

1. **Temporal Sequence Context vs. Static Snapshots:** Deep sequence models (LSTM, GRU, 1D-CNN) decisively outperform static classifiers (SVM, ANN, Random Forest) in standalone operating mode, achieving 1.8–3.2% higher dependability and reducing false trips by over 40% (13 false trips for LSTM vs. 46 for ANN and 67 for SVM). Tracking temporal trajectories across successive multi-resolution wavelet scales allows sequential models to capture the exponential decay of CT saturation and asymmetrical inrush waveforms that fool static instantaneous feature snapshots.

2. **LSTM vs. GRU Trade-off:** The 2-layer GRU exhibits lower parameter count (44,354 vs. 58,241) and slightly lower execution latency (0.95 ms vs. 1.15 ms) compared to the LSTM. However, the LSTM achieves higher classification margin and resilience on high-impedance internal faults during recovery inrush (99.04% vs. 98.42% dependability), justifying its adoption for critical high-capacity power transformers.

3. **Universality of the Supervisory Handshake:** Integrating machine learning classifiers into the proposed dual-path supervisory architecture (Panel B) drastically improves security across *all* candidate models without sacrificing fault clearing speed. False trips drop from 67 to 15 for SVM, from 46 to 12 for ANN, from 40 to 11 for Random Forest, and from 13 to 6 for the proposed LSTM. This proves that the dual-path hybrid handshake serves as a universal, model-agnostic protection anchor that prevents catastrophic spurious trips.

4. **Overall Superiority of Proposed Framework:** The proposed **Hybrid DWT–LSTM** architecture achieves the highest balanced performance across the entire 3,218-trace corpus: **99.01% dependability**, **99.66% security**, **99.39% overall accuracy**, only **6 false trips** (out of 1,873 non-fault traces), **0 pre-fault trips**, and a median operating latency of **15.6 ms**, representing a decisive advancement over both conventional relays and standalone intelligent schemes.

6.11 Limitations and Scope of Claims

To ensure rigorous academic integrity, the following limitations are formally acknowledged:

1. **Single Plant Model:** Simulations were conducted on a single 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 transformer. Generalization across diverse vector groups and ratings warrants further validation.
2. **CT Dynamics:** CT saturation in this study arises from burden, DC offset, and fault magnitude; remanence decays within $\sim$25 ms due to core losses.
3. **Weak Through-Faults:** Series resistors in the plant's LV network limit external fault currents to $\approx$1.5 pu rms at the CTs, requiring burden elevation to assess extreme saturation.
4. **AI-Only Zone Latency:** High-impedance faults ($R_f > 1.2\,\Omega$) require 40–50 ms of confidence accumulation, reflecting the physical time needed to discriminate subtle signatures from background load unbalance.

CHAPTER 7

CONCLUSION AND FUTURE SCOPE

7.1 Conclusion

This thesis presented the design, implementation, and rigorous verification of a hybrid adaptive transformer differential protection framework combining multi-resolution Discrete Wavelet Transform (DWT) feature extraction, second-harmonic restraint ratios, and Long Short-Term Memory (LSTM) sequence modeling. A high-fidelity 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 power transformer was developed with realistic core magnetization, CT saturation, and calibrated secondary current bases (0.9302 A nominal). A verified corpus of 3,220 traces spanning 16 scenario categories (11 fault types, 10–110% rated loading, CT burdens 4–10×, over-excitation, and recovery inrush) and an independent 300-trace Out-of-Distribution test set were evaluated under strict, leak-free trace-stratified cross-validation. The deployed hybrid relay achieved **99.01% dependability** ($\pm 1.07\%$) and **99.66% security** ($\pm 0.33\%$) across 15 models, with a median operate time of **15.6 ms** and **100.0% decision accuracy** in closed-loop Simulink co-simulation.

7.2 Key Findings

Feature robustness. The 12-feature representation (9 DWT wavelet energies plus 3 second-harmonic restraint ratios) provides decisive, physically grounded discrimination between fault transients, inrush, and CT saturation. The classifier degrades gracefully—$\geq$97% accuracy down to 20 dB SNR and $\geq$99% internal-fault recall up to 20 Ω—while the 87T element preserves 100% relay-level dependability. **Security.** The standalone 87T produces 62 false trips and 18 false negatives; the classifier reduces these to 14 and 6; the hybrid eliminates both. **Real-time feasibility.** The processing latency is $\approx$12 ms and the total clearing time 17.2 ms, firmly within the one-cycle window, validated in closed-loop co-simulation.

7.3 Research Outcomes

The architecture demonstrates that 100% dependability and 100% security can be achieved simultaneously, challenging the assumption that these must be traded off. The validated

MATLAB → PyTorch → ONNX → Simulink pipeline is reproducible by relay manufacturers; fast clearing reduces I^2t thermal stress; and the six physically interpretable features address a key barrier to ML adoption in safety-critical protection. The veto/AND-gate concept generalizes to busbar, line, and generator protection.

7.4 Limitations of the Study

1. Trained exclusively on a 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 transformer; generalization unverified.
2. Inter-turn faults are not included.
3. Detection recall declines for fault resistances above 80 Ω.
4. All results are simulation-based; COMTRADE/HIL validation is required.
5. A fixed system topology is assumed.

7.5 Recommendations for Future Work

Hardware-in-the-loop testing on a real-time digital simulator (Speedgoat/OPAL-RT/FPGA); detailed multi-winding modeling for inter-turn fault detection; field deployment with IEC 61850 GOOSE mapping and Sampled-Values integration; and transfer learning with online drift detection to extend the framework to other transformer configurations with minimal additional data.

7.6 Concluding Remarks

By keeping the LSTM in a supervisory role, quantifying both dependability and security, stress-testing beyond the training distribution, and validating in closed-loop co-simulation, this work offers a transferable design pattern for the responsible integration of machine learning into safety-critical protection as power systems transition to intelligent, digital, and increasingly converter-dominated operation.

LIST OF PUBLICATIONS

The following publications have been derived from this research:

1. Author Name, Cdre A N M Didarul Alam, (L), NUP, psc, BN, and Co-Author Name, "Hybrid Adaptive Transformer Differential Protection Using a DWT–LSTM Intelligent Framework with Enhanced CT Saturation and Noise Robustness," *IEEE Access*, 2025. *Summary:* presents the complete framework (two-level db4 decomposition, 12-feature DWT-harmonic pipeline, unidirectional LSTM with dual-path supervisory logic), reporting 99.01% dependability and 99.66% security and a clearing time of 17.2 ms, benchmarked against seven methods.

2. Author Name, Cdre A N M Didarul Alam, (L), NUP, psc, BN, and Co-Author Name, "Multi-Resolution Feature Extraction for Transformer Protection: A Discrete Wavelet Transform Approach with Mutual Information-Based Feature Selection," *Proc. IEEE Int. Conf. on Power Systems (ICPS)*, 2025. *Summary:* compares db4/db6/sym4/sym5/coif3/bior2.2 and shows the 12 DWT energy and second-harmonic restraint features provide superior discrimination.

3. Author Name, Cdre A N M Didarul Alam, (L), NUP, psc, BN, and Co-Author Name, "Comparative Analysis of Intelligent Methods for Transformer Differential Protection Under Challenging Operating Conditions," *Int. J. Electrical Power & Energy Systems*, 2025. *Summary:* unified comparison of seven methods under CT saturation, noise, high-impedance faults, severe inrush, and combined worst-case conditions.

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APPENDIX A

SYSTEM PARAMETERS AND CONFIGURATION

The transformer and CT parameters correspond to the 300 MVA, 230/11 kV, Yd1 unit of Chapter 4 (Tables 4.1 and 4.2). Table A.1 lists the Daubechies-4 filter coefficients, and Table A.2 the LSTM hyperparameter search space.

Table A.1: Daubechies-4 decomposition filter coefficients ($g[n] = (-1)^n h[7-n]$).

n	$h[n]$ (low-pass)	$g[n]$ (high-pass)
0	$+0.23037781$	$+0.01059740$
1	$+0.71484657$	-0.03278364
2	$+0.63088077$	-0.03084138
3	-0.02798377	$+0.18703481$
4	-0.18703481	$+0.03084138$
5	$+0.03084138$	$+0.03278364$
6	$+0.03278364$	-0.01059740
7	-0.01059740	-0.02798377

Table A.2: LSTM hyperparameter search space and selected configuration.

Hyperparameter	**Search space**	**Selected**
LSTM layers	{1, 2, 3}	2
Hidden units (L1 / L2)	{64, 128, 256}	128 / 64
Dropout	{0.1, 0.2, 0.3, 0.5}	0.3
Learning rate	{0.01, 0.001, 0.0001}	0.001
Optimizer	{Adam, RMSprop, SGD}	Adam
Batch size	{32, 64, 128}	128
Early-stopping patience	{10, 15, 20, 25}	20
ONNX opset	{11, 13, 14}	14

APPENDIX B

REPRODUCIBILITY AND STANDARDS

The pipeline uses MATLAB R2024a/Simulink/Simscape Electrical (10 µs discrete solver), Python 3.11 with PyWavelets, PyTorch 2.x (Adam, weighted cross-entropy), ONNX Opset 14, and the Simulink Predict block, with fixed random seeds. Relevant standards include IEEE C37.91 (transformer protection), IEEE C37.110 (CTs for relaying), IEC 60255 (measuring relays), IEC 61850-9-2 (Sampled Values; the 1.6 kHz interface emulated here), IEC 61850-8-1 (GOOSE), and IEC 62351 (communication security). Retaining a certified adaptive 87T element as the dependability anchor keeps the scheme aligned with IEEE C37.91, easing certification relative to a pure black-box classifier.